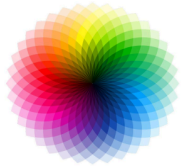


Dynamical Systems Meets Data:

DMD, Koopman, and Reduced Representations

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What we've seen so far...

In session 1, we built the foundation for data-driven dynamics:

- What a dynamical system is: state space, flow/map, trajectories, phase portrait
- Linear systems: eigenvalues, modes, stability, and oscillations
- Nonlinear systems: fixed points, attractors, and chaos (Lorenz-63)
- Predictability through Lyapunov exponents
- Why observations can still encode hidden state dynamics (Whitney/Takens intuition)
- Core idea for this session: represent nonlinear dynamics linearly in observable space (Koopman)

What's next?

- Session 1: dynamical systems basics, attractors, chaos, and Koopman motivation
- **Session 2 (today): from theory to algorithms and practice**
 - Dynamic Mode Decomposition (DMD): derivation, interpretation, and variants
 - Exact DMD workflow
 - Koopman mode decomposition through finite-dimensional approximation (EDMD)
 - Eigenvalues, eigenfunctions, and dynamic modes for nonlinear systems
 - How this maps directly to the lab pipeline and notebook implementation

From Concepts To Operators

- Session 1 asked: can we reconstruct and linearize nonlinear dynamics from data?
- Session 2 answers: yes, by fitting linear operators in the right coordinates.

Today we move from:

- geometric and stability intuition (state space)

to:

- spectral algorithms (DMD/Koopman) that produce actionable models from snapshots.

Linear Dynamical System

Start with a linear dynamical system in state space:

$$\dot{\mathbf{x}} = \mathbf{L}\mathbf{x}, \quad \mathbf{x}(0) = \mathbf{x}_0$$

Discrete-time system in state space:

$$\mathbf{x}(t + \tau) = \mathbf{A}\mathbf{x}(t), \quad \mathbf{A} = e^{\mathbf{L}\tau} \in \mathbb{R}^{d \times d}.$$

Iterating the map gives

$$\mathbf{x}(k\tau) = \mathbf{A}^k \mathbf{x}_0.$$

- $\mathbf{A}$ is the transition operator of the discrete-time dynamical system.
- So understanding the behavior of the system means understanding powers of $\mathbf{A}$.

Eigendecomposition Of The Transition Operator

If $\mathbf{A}$ is diagonalizable, then

$$\mathbf{A} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}\mathbf{M}^{-1}, \quad \mathbf{\Lambda} = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n),$$

where the columns of $\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{m}_1 | \dots | \mathbf{m}_n]$ are eigenvectors with corresponding eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \dots, \lambda_n$.

Then we have the **Dynamic Mode Decomposition** ([Schmid 2010](#))

$$\mathbf{x}(k\tau) = \mathbf{A}^k \mathbf{x}_0 = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}^k \mathbf{M}^{-1} \mathbf{x}_0 = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}^k \boldsymbol{\phi} = \sum_{j=1}^n \mathbf{m}_j \lambda_j^k \phi_j, \quad \boldsymbol{\phi} = \mathbf{M}^{-1} \mathbf{x}_0.$$

- $\lambda_j \in \mathbb{C}$: **discrete time** eigenvalues (*eventhough they were continuous session 1*)
- $\mathbf{m}_j \in \mathbb{C}^d$: spatial modes / eigenvectors
- $\phi_j \in \mathbb{C}$: loadings from the initial condition

Link To Continuous Time

If the discrete-time map $\mathbf{A}$ comes from sampling a continuous-time system every τ units, then the discrete and continuous eigenvalues are related by

$$\lambda_j = a_j + b_j i = e^{\omega_j \tau}, \quad \omega_j = \frac{1}{\tau} \log(\lambda_j).$$

- $|\lambda_j| < 1$: decay per time step
- $|\lambda_j| > 1$: growth per time step
- $\arg(\lambda_j) = \text{Im}(\omega_j)$: oscillation angle per time step
- $\text{Re}(\omega_j)$ and $\text{Im}(\omega_j)$ give continuous-time growth/decay and oscillation rates

Dynamic Mode Decomposition (summary)

Starting from

$$\mathbf{x}(t + \tau) = \mathbf{A}\mathbf{x}(t)$$

iterate in discrete time ($m = t/\tau$):

$$\mathbf{x}(t) = \mathbf{A}^m \mathbf{x}_0, \quad \mathbf{x}(0) = \mathbf{x}_0$$

If $\mathbf{A} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}\mathbf{M}^{-1}$ and $\boldsymbol{\phi} = \mathbf{M}^{-1}\mathbf{x}(0)$, then

$$\mathbf{x}(t) = \mathbf{W}\mathbf{\Lambda}^m \boldsymbol{\phi} = \sum_{j=1}^k \mathbf{m}_j \lambda_j^{t/\tau} \phi_j = \sum_{j=1}^k \mathbf{m}_j e^{\omega_j t} \phi_j$$

Timeseries parameterized by t , $e^{\omega_j t} \phi_j$, is *temporal dynamics* of dynamic mode $\mathbf{m}_j$

Meet the data ... now we use our model in the real world!

Consider the timeseries of samples $\{\mathbf{x}_0, \mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_p\} \subset \mathbb{R}^n$

What if n is really, really big?

Enter *feature extraction* via rank k -truncated **Singular Value Decomposition**

$$[\mathbf{x}_0 \mid \mathbf{x}_1 \mid \cdots \mid \mathbf{x}_p] = \mathbf{X} \approx \mathbf{U}\mathbf{\Sigma}\mathbf{V}^\top$$

where $k < n$ and

$$\mathbf{U} = [\mathbf{u}_1 \mid \mathbf{u}_2 \mid \cdots \mid \mathbf{u}_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times k}, \quad \mathbf{\Sigma} = \begin{bmatrix} \sigma_1 & & & 0 \\ & \sigma_2 & & \\ & & \ddots & \\ 0 & & & \sigma_k \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times r}, \quad \mathbf{V} = [\mathbf{v}_1 \mid \mathbf{v}_2 \mid \cdots \mid \mathbf{v}_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times k},$$

If timeseries mean-centered, this is Principal Component Analysis PCA, a.k.a.

Empirical Orthogonal Function Analysis (EOF Analysis) with EOFs $\mathbf{U}$ and PCs $\mathbf{\Sigma}\mathbf{V}^\top$.

DMD as Feature Extraction Then Regression

1. Feature extraction (map snapshots to rank- k subspace):

$$\mathbf{z}_k = \mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{x}_k, \quad \mathbf{U} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times k}, \quad \mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{U} = \mathbf{I}.$$

2. Regression in reduced space (fit reduced propagator $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}$):

$$\tilde{\mathbf{A}} := \arg \min_{\tilde{\mathbf{A}}} \|\mathbf{Z}' - \tilde{\mathbf{A}}\mathbf{Z}\|_F, \quad \mathbf{Z} = [\mathbf{z}_0 \mid \dots \mid \mathbf{z}_{p-1}], \quad \mathbf{Z}' = [\mathbf{z}_2 \mid \dots \mid \mathbf{z}_p].$$

Eigendecomposition of the fitted reduced operator:

$$\tilde{\mathbf{A}}\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{W}\mathbf{\Lambda}, \quad \mathbf{\Lambda} = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_k).$$

- Eigenvalues: λ_j (entries of $\mathbf{\Lambda}$), controlling growth/decay and oscillation.
- Dynamic modes in ambient space: $\mathbf{m}_j = \mathbf{U}\mathbf{w}_j$.
- Loadings: ϕ from $\mathbf{M}\phi = \mathbf{x}_0$, with $\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{m}_1 \mid \dots \mid \mathbf{m}_k]$.

Eigendecomposition: Ambient Vs Reduced

Eigendecomposition of the reduced operator:

$$\tilde{\mathbf{A}}\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{W}\mathbf{\Lambda}, \quad \mathbf{\Lambda} = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_k).$$

Connection to ambient-space operator $\mathbf{A}$:

$$\mathbf{A} \approx \mathbf{U}\tilde{\mathbf{A}}\mathbf{U}^\top \implies \mathbf{A}(\mathbf{U}\mathbf{W}) \approx (\mathbf{U}\mathbf{W})\mathbf{\Lambda} \implies \mathbf{A}\mathbf{M} \approx \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}.$$

- So the eigenvalue decomposition of the fitted reduced operator $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}$ gives the projected eigenstructure of the ambient transition operator $\mathbf{A}$ *without having to directly fit $\mathbf{A}$ to our data.*

Issue: What if $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}$ is not diagonalizable?

We have to approximate ϕ by solving $\mathbf{M}\phi = \mathbf{x}_0$ using: (1) left eigenvectors of $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}$, (2) pseudoinverse of $\mathbf{M}$, (3) least squares, etc.

Other DMD Algorithms

DMD (even Koopman) algorithms are different variations to steps (1) *feature extraction* and (2) *regression* in reduced space.

Here we discuss

- Exact Dynamic Mode Decomposition
(SVD compression + linear regression, in 1 step)
- Physics Informed Dynamic Mode Decomposition
(SVD compression + linear regression with constraints, in 1 step)
- Extended Dynamic Mode Decomposition
(Choose your feature extraction method + linear regression)

Exact DMD [Tu et al. 2013]

1. Stack the data into *snapshot matrices*

$$\mathbf{X} = [\mathbf{x}_0 \mid \dots \mid \mathbf{x}_{p-1}], \quad \mathbf{Y} = [\mathbf{x}_1 \mid \dots \mid \mathbf{x}_p]$$

2. Want to solve

$$\min_{\mathbf{A}} \|\mathbf{Y} - \mathbf{A}\mathbf{X}\|_F$$

3. Rank- r truncated SVD $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{U}\mathbf{\Sigma}\mathbf{V}^\top$ leads to

$$\mathbf{A}_\star = \mathbf{Y}\mathbf{X}^\dagger, \quad \mathbf{X}^\dagger \approx \mathbf{V}\mathbf{\Sigma}^{-1}\mathbf{U}^\top$$
$$\tilde{\mathbf{A}} = \mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{A} \mathbf{U} = \mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{Y} \mathbf{V} \mathbf{\Sigma}^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}^{k \times k},$$

4. Eigendecomposition

$$\tilde{\mathbf{A}}\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{W}\mathbf{\Lambda}$$

Exact DMD (continued)

4. Dynamic modes

$$\mathbf{m}_j = \mathbf{Y}\mathbf{V}\mathbf{\Sigma}^{-1}\mathbf{w}_j$$

5. Eigenvalues (discrete time)

$$\lambda_j = e^{\omega_j \tau}$$

6. Loadings ϕ found by solving

$$\mathbf{M}\phi = \mathbf{x}(0)$$

Physics-informed DMD [Baddoo et al., 2021]

Enforce physical structure when fitting propagator $\mathbf{A}$:

$$\mathbf{A}_{\text{PI}} := \arg \min_{\mathbf{A} \in \mathcal{C}} \|\mathbf{Y} - \mathbf{A}\mathbf{X}\|_F^2 \quad (\text{or } \arg \min_{\mathbf{A} \in \mathcal{C}} \|\mathbf{Y} - \mathbf{A}\mathbf{X}\|_F^2 + \gamma \mathcal{R}(\mathbf{A})).$$

- $\mathcal{C}$ encodes known structure (examples):
 - stability constraints (e.g., spectral radius $\rho(\mathbf{A}) \leq 1$ in discrete time)
 - symmetry / skew-symmetry / block structure from governing equations
 - sparsity, bandedness, or locality constraints
- This keeps DMD data-driven, but restricts $\mathbf{A}$ to physically admissible reduced dynamics.
- Modes, eigenvalues, and loadings are computed from $\mathbf{A}_{\text{PI}}\mathbf{M} = \mathbf{M}\mathbf{\Lambda}$ as usual.

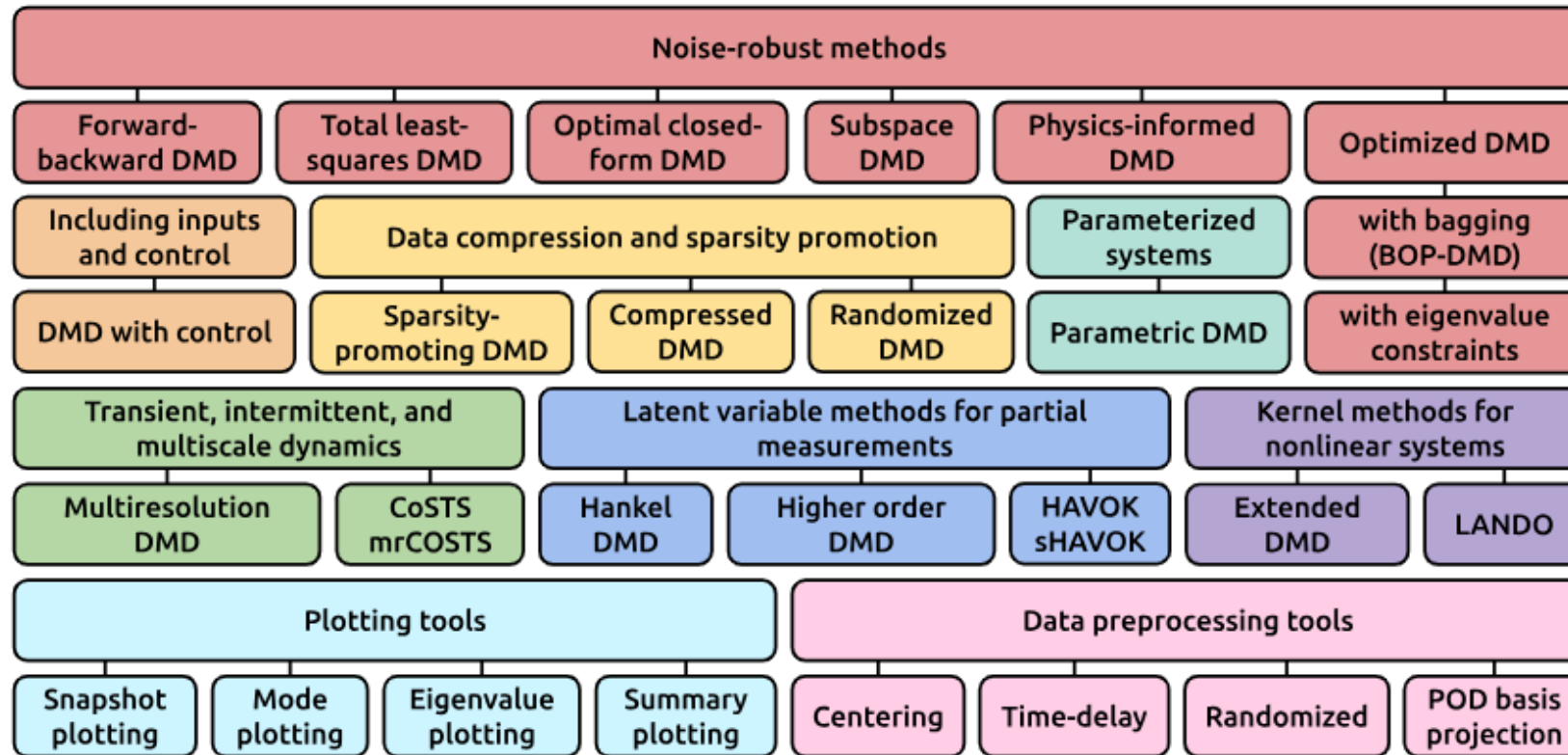
Standard DMD Limitations

DMD assumes a *linear discrete time autonomous dynamical system*

- Mode Mixing
- No uncertainty quantification or statistical significance assessment
- Best for stationary oscillatory or exponential behavior
- Exact DMD is not robust to noise -> Kutz recommends [Optimized DMD](#)
- Difficult to interpret complex patterns from dynamic modes -> [phasor notation](#)
- Linear evolution between snapshots -> Try Extended DMD and Koopman theory (next section)

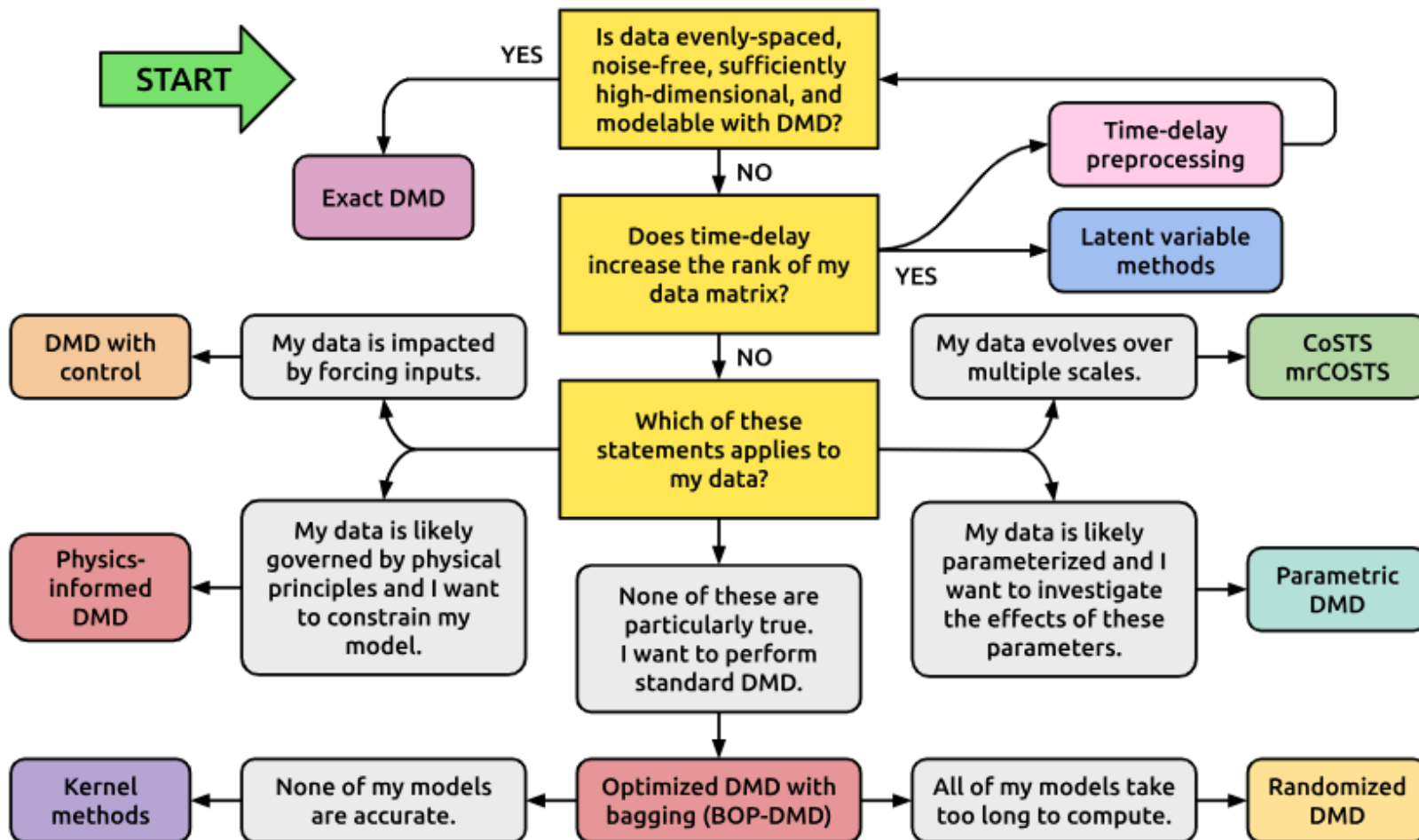
What about Code?... [PyDMD]

Current PyDMD Capabilities



Choosing the Right DMD [PyDMD]

Which method should I use?



Further Reading

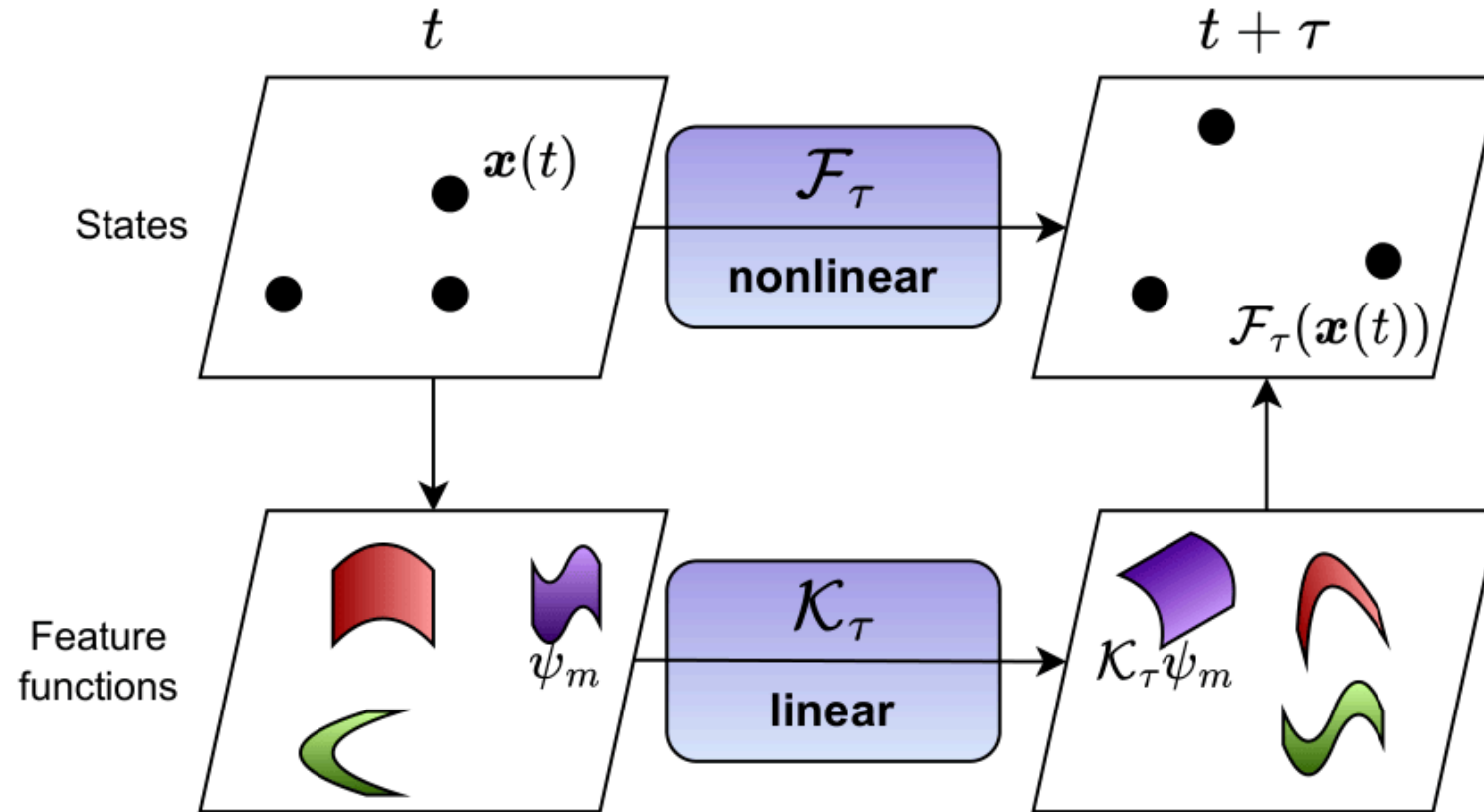
There are MANY variants of DMD

- Multiverse of DMD
- Generalizing DMD: Modern Koopman theory

Transition To Koopman

- DMD gives the core idea
estimate a *linear operator* from data and *analyze its spectrum*.
- Koopman is the
nonlinear extension of the DMD story.
- For nonlinear systems, we keep that same DMD idea... but!
move from state space to *observable space*.

Koopman Operators



Koopman Operators

Koopman theory predicts the evolution of **observables** (a.k.a. feature functions) ψ , not necessarily the state itself.

Koopman operator (denoted $\mathcal{K}_\tau$) ([Koopman 1931](#)):

$$\mathcal{K}_\tau \psi(\mathbf{x}(t)) = \psi(\mathcal{F}_\tau \mathbf{x}(t)) = \psi(\mathbf{x}(t + \tau))$$

- The state dynamics $\mathcal{F}_\tau$ may be nonlinear.
- The Koopman operator is linear, even when $\mathcal{F}_\tau$ is not.

Koopman Mode Decomposition

Assume a spectral expansion of the Koopman operator:

$$\mathcal{K}_\tau \varphi_j = \lambda_j \varphi_j.$$

Then observables admit the decomposition

$$\psi(\mathbf{x}(t)) = \sum_{j=1}^k \lambda_j^t \varphi_j(\mathbf{x}(0)) \mathbf{m}_j,$$

where:

- λ_j are Koopman *eigenvalues* (growth/decay + oscillations),
- φ_j are Koopman *eigenfunctions* (loadings),
- $\mathbf{m}_j$ are Koopman *modes* (spatial structures).

What do we need for the Koopman operator to work?

Enter the **full-state observable** (a vector with entries observables g_j)

$$\mathbf{g}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x}, \quad \mathbf{g} = [g_1, \dots, g_n]^\top,$$

- each component g_i is treated as a scalar observable in the Koopman function space.
- This is the key bridge between nonlinear state evolution and linear observable evolution.

Why the full-state observable matters

Choosing $\mathbf{g}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x}$ gives:

- State reconstruction from Koopman eigenfunctions (exact if components of $\mathbf{g}$ lie in their span):

$$\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{g}(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{j=1}^r \mathbf{m}_j \phi_j(\mathbf{x})$$

- One-step evolution in Koopman form:

$$\mathcal{F}_\tau(\mathbf{x}) = (\mathcal{K}_\tau \mathbf{g})(\mathbf{x}) \approx \sum_{j=1}^r \lambda_j \mathbf{m}_j \phi_j(\mathbf{x})$$

- $\mathbf{m}_j$ are Koopman modes (state-space spatial patterns).
- This is state-space interpretation used in DMD/Koopman mode decomposition.

Linear Koopman = DMD

If we choose the observable map to be the linear (e.g., EOFs),

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{x},$$

then the finite-dimensional

Note: as with DMD continuous eigenvalues ω are $\lambda = e^{\omega\tau}$
the Koopman update becomes

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}_{k+1} = \mathbf{K}\boldsymbol{\psi}_k \quad \implies \quad \mathbf{x}_{k+1} \approx \mathbf{U}\mathbf{K}\mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{x}_k.$$

The Koopman matrix is exactly the same linear evolution operator used in DMD

- DMD is the special case of Koopman analysis with *linear* lifting.
- Koopman methods generalize DMD by replacing $\mathbf{U}^\top \mathbf{x}$ with richer observables $\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x})$.

Other Observable Dictionary Examples

For $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^d$, typical choices for $\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}) = [\psi_1(\mathbf{x}), \dots, \psi_m(\mathbf{x})]^\top$ are:

- Identity:

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x}$$

- Linear map:

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{U}_r^\top (\mathbf{x} - \boldsymbol{\mu})$$

- Polynomial features (total degree $\leq p$):

$$\psi_\alpha(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x}^\alpha = \prod_{i=1}^d x_i^{\alpha_i}, \quad |\alpha| \leq p$$

Observable Dictionary Examples (continued)

Two common ways to enrich the observable space beyond static features are:

- Time-delay embeddings:

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}_k) = [\mathbf{x}_k^\top, \mathbf{x}_{k-1}^\top, \dots, \mathbf{x}_{k-q}^\top]^\top$$

which incorporates short trajectory history into the lifted state.

- Neural-network dictionary:

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}) = f_\theta(\mathbf{x}) \in \mathbb{R}^m$$

(e.g., hidden-layer activations or final embedding)

Kernel Koopman Mode Decomposition

Kernel Koopman / kernel EDMD ([Williams et al. 2015](#), [Klus et al. 2017](#)) generalizes EDMD by replacing an explicit finite dictionary with an implicit feature space.

Given a kernel $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$, we interpret it as an inner product

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = \langle \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}), \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}') \rangle.$$

Then the Koopman fit can be written entirely in terms of Gram matrices, so the algorithm never needs to form $\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x})$ explicitly.

- EDMD: choose a finite dictionary $\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x})$ directly.
- Kernel EDMD: choose a kernel and let the dictionary be implicit.
- Same Koopman idea, different representation of the lifted space.

Random Fourier Features And Kernel Koopman

Random Fourier features provide an explicit approximation to shift-invariant kernels such as the RBF kernel.

For an RBF kernel, one can sample frequencies ω_j so that

$$\psi_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{m}} [\cos(\omega_1^\top \mathbf{x}), \dots, \cos(\omega_m^\top \mathbf{x}), \sin(\omega_1^\top \mathbf{x}), \dots, \sin(\omega_m^\top \mathbf{x})]^\top.$$

- Inner products between these features approximate the kernel:

$$\psi_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x})^\top \psi_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x}') \approx k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}').$$

- So RFF turns kernel Koopman into an explicit finite-dimensional EDMD problem.
- In this notebook, the `rff` option is exactly this kind of random-feature lift, not exact kernel Gram-matrix EDMD.

Random Fourier Features (RFF) [[Rahimi et al. 2007](#)]

For shift-invariant kernels $k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') = k(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}')$:

By Bochner's theorem:

$$k(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}') = \mathbb{E}_{\boldsymbol{\omega} \sim p(\boldsymbol{\omega})} \left[e^{i\boldsymbol{\omega}^\top (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}')} \right].$$

This motivates a finite-dimensional *approximation*:

$$k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}') \approx \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x})^\top \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}').$$

Further reading on approximation accuracy of RFF: [[Sutherland et al. 2015](#)]

Dictionary of RFF Observables

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{m}} \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\boldsymbol{\omega}_1^\top \mathbf{x}) \\ \vdots \\ \cos(\boldsymbol{\omega}_m^\top \mathbf{x}) \\ \sin(\boldsymbol{\omega}_1^\top \mathbf{x}) \\ \vdots \\ \sin(\boldsymbol{\omega}_m^\top \mathbf{x}) \end{bmatrix}$$

where

$$\boldsymbol{\omega}_j \sim \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{0}, \sigma^{-2} \mathbf{I}).$$

Interpretation

- RFFs approximate an **infinite-dimensional RKHS embedding** with a finite dictionary
- Inner products recover the kernel:

$$\psi_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x})^\top \psi_{\text{rff}}(\mathbf{x}') \approx k(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}')$$

- Turns nonlinear problems into linear ones in feature space
- Provides a scalable alternative to kernel methods (no Gram matrix)

Koopman Mode Decomposition with Extended DMD (EDMD)

In the notebook, we approximate the Koopman operator on a finite dictionary of observables using EDMD [Williams et al. 2014](#).

With dictionary $\mathcal{D} = \{\psi_1, \dots, \psi_m\}$ resented in $\text{span}(\mathcal{D})$.

For the full-state observable, we also seek

$$\mathbf{g}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x} \approx \mathbf{B} \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}),$$

so lifted coordinates can be decoded back to the physical state.

Given snapshots $\mathbf{x}_k$ and next-step snapshots $\mathbf{y}_k$, define column-stacked lifted data matrices

$$\boldsymbol{\Psi}_X = [\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}_1) \quad \cdots \quad \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}_N)], \quad \boldsymbol{\Psi}_Y = [\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{y}_1) \quad \cdots \quad \boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{y}_N)].$$

Koopman Mode Decomposition (finite-dimensional fit)

We fit a finite-dimensional Koopman matrix $\mathbf{K}$ by

$$\mathbf{K} = \arg \min_{\mathbf{K}} \|\Psi_Y - \mathbf{K} \Psi_X\|_F^2.$$

The notebook also learns a decoder back to state space,

$$\hat{\mathbf{x}} = \mathbf{B} \psi(\mathbf{x}).$$

- $\mathbf{K}$ advances observables forward in time.
- $\mathbf{B}$ maps lifted coordinates back to physical variables.

Koopman Spectral Analysis

After fitting $\mathbf{K}$, we compute eigendecomposition:

$$\mathbf{K}\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{W}\mathbf{\Lambda}, \quad \mathbf{\Lambda} = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_r).$$

- λ_j are discrete-time Koopman eigenvalues
- $\omega_j = \tau^{-1} \log(\lambda_j)$ are continuous-time eigenvalues

In practice, $\mathbf{K}$ might not be diagonalizable... meaning $\mathbf{W}^{-1}$ may not exist

Koopman Eigenfunctions

For $\mathbf{K}$, the Koopman eigenfunctions are found by solving

$$\mathbf{W}\Phi_X = \Psi_X \text{ for } \Phi_X$$

Since $\mathbf{W}$ is not always invertible we can use *pseudoinverse* $\mathbf{W}^\dagger$

$$\Phi_X = \mathbf{W}^\dagger \Psi_X$$

(This is like using loadings from DMD!)

Then the vector of Koopman eigenfunctions is $\phi = [\phi_1 \mid \dots \mid \phi_r]$

$$\Phi_X = [\phi(\mathbf{x}_1) \mid \dots \mid \phi(\mathbf{x}_k)]$$

Koopman Dynamic Modes

The decoder maps observables back to the state space:

$$\hat{\mathbf{x}} = \mathbf{B}\psi(\mathbf{x}).$$

Changing to the eigenfunction basis gives

$$\hat{\mathbf{x}} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{W}\mathbf{W}^\dagger\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{M}\phi(\mathbf{x}), \quad \mathbf{M} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{W}.$$

The Koopman dynamic modes are the vectors $\mathbf{m}_j$ defined by $\mathbf{M} = [\mathbf{m}_1 \mid \cdots \mid \mathbf{m}_r]$.

Koopman Mode Decomposition

Putting the fitted operator, eigenfunctions, and decoder together gives

$$\hat{\mathbf{x}}_{k+s} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{A}^s\boldsymbol{\psi}(\mathbf{x}_k) = \mathbf{M}\boldsymbol{\Lambda}^s\boldsymbol{\phi}(\mathbf{x}_k) = \sum_{j=1}^r \lambda_j^s \phi_j(\mathbf{x}_k) \mathbf{m}_j.$$

- $\phi_j(\mathbf{x})$ are Koopman eigenfunctions
- $\mathbf{m}_j$ are dynamic modes in the original state space
- λ_j discrete time Koopman eigenvalues control growth, decay, and oscillation

Example 1: Duffing (demo3_kmd_duffing.ipynb)

$$\ddot{x} + \frac{1}{2}\dot{x} - x + x^3 = 0$$

- Simulate many trajectories of Duffing oscillator from random initial conditions.
- Fit finite-dimensional Koopman/EDMD model state snapshots $(x, \dot{x})$.
- Compute Koopman Mode Decomposition.
- Visualize one selected eigenfunction as a contour over phase space.
- Compare basin-of-attraction labels (left well vs right well) with the sign of the selected eigenfunction.

Main idea:

- Koopman eigenfunctions can separate invariant sets (basins) even when trajectories are nonlinear in state space.

Example 2: Lorenz-63 (demo4_kmd_lorenz63.ipynb)

- Generate Lorenz trajectory and split into train/test time windows.
- Fit an Koopman/EDMD model on (x, y, z) snapshots.
- Evaluate training reconstruction and test prediction errors.
- Perform Koopman Mode Decomposition
- Visualize eigenfunction geometry with: 3D trajectory coloring and 2D z -slice contour maps.

Main idea:

- Koopman Mode Decomposition is interpretable structure beyond raw forecast error.

Session 1 Wrap-Up

Session 1 built the dynamical-systems language that the rest of the course uses:

- state space, trajectories, fixed points, stability, and attractors
- linear systems through eigenvalues and modal decomposition
- nonlinear dynamics, Lorenz-63, and chaos
- how observations can still contain enough information to reconstruct hidden dynamics

The main takeaway: geometry and stability are encoded by the evolution operator.

Session 2 Wrap-Up

Session 2 turned that language into data-driven algorithms:

- DMD as operator fitting from snapshots
- reduced models through projection, regression, and eigendecomposition
- Koopman and EDMD as linear dynamics in observable space
- dictionary choices, kernel Koopman, and random Fourier features
- dynamic modes, eigenfunctions, and state reconstruction

The main takeaway: nonlinear dynamics can often be organized by a linear operator after lifting.

Thank you!

Any questions?...